

Infinite Sequences: An *infinite sequence* is an ordered collection of numbers $\{a_1, a_2, a_3, \dots\}$, often denoted $\{a_n\}$, where n is called the *index* of the sequence.

Example: Consider the following sequences:

$$\{(-1)^n n\}, \quad \left\{\frac{1}{n}\right\}, \quad \{(-1)^n\}.$$

↑
Function Method does not work here because you can't extend sequence infinitely

- We say $\{a_n\}$ *converges* if $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = L$ (i.e. the limit exists).
- We say $\{a_n\}$ *diverges* if $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \pm\infty$ or if the sequence *oscillates forever* (i.e. the limit does not exist).
Divergence: ∞ , $-\infty$, Oscillates

Function Method: If you want to determine the limit behavior of $\{a_n\}$, you can alternatively consider a function $f(x)$, $x \geq 1$ for which $f(n) = a_n$ for all $n = 1, 2, \dots$. Then

- If $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} f(x) = L$, then $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = L$.
- If $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} f(x) = \pm\infty$, then $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = \pm\infty$.

Example: Determine whether the following sequences diverge or converge.

$$\left\{1 + \frac{2}{n}\right\}^n, \quad \left\{\frac{5n^5}{e^n}\right\}, \quad \left\{\left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^n\right\}, \quad \left\{\frac{n^2}{n^2 + 1}\right\}, \quad \{\arctan(\ln(n))\}.$$

Raising using $\ln$ is helpful when you have exponentials

Let $f(x) = \left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)^x$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)^x$

$\neq 1$ since there is a battle between the inf's

$\ln\left(\left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)^x\right) = x \ln\left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)$

$e^{\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} x \ln\left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)}$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} x \ln\left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln\left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)}{\frac{1}{x}}$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\frac{-2}{x^2}}{-\frac{1}{x^2}} = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} 2 = 2$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} x \ln\left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right) = 2$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 + \frac{2}{x}\right)^x = e^2$

$= e^2$ converges

Let $f(x) = \left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^x$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^x$

$\ln\left(\left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^x\right) = x \ln\left(\frac{1}{3}\right)$

$e^{\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} x \ln\left(\frac{1}{3}\right)}$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} x \ln\left(\frac{1}{3}\right) = -\infty$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^x = 0$ convergent

Let $f(x) = \frac{x^2}{x^2 + 2}$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{x^2}{x^2 + 2}$

$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{2x}{2x} = 1$ converges

Let $f(x) = \arctan(\ln(x))$

$\arctan\left(\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \ln(x)\right)$

$\arctan(\ln(\infty)) \approx \arctan(\infty)$

What happens to $\arctan$ when it goes to $+\infty$?

$\frac{\pi}{2}$ converges - why?

Sequences / infinite sequences

Ordered collection of real numbers $\{a_1, a_2, \dots, a_n\}$

Often denoted $\{a_n\}$ where n is the index

Ex $\{(-1)^n\}$, $a_n = (-1)^n$

$\{\frac{1}{n}\}$, $a_n = \frac{1}{n}$

$\{(-1)^n\}$, $a_n = (-1)^n$

$-1, 1, -1, 1$
 a_1, a_2, a_3, a_4

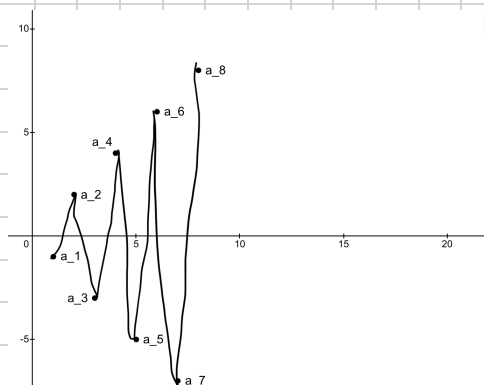
← Divergent, $|a_n| = 1$ but
sign is also switching

$1, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{3}, \frac{1}{4}$
 a_1, a_2, a_3, a_4

← converges, denominator gets bigger
So it goes to 0 ($\frac{1}{\infty} = 0$)

$-1, 1, -1, 1$
 a_1, a_2, a_3, a_4

← oscillates forever → divergent



What about $\{(-\frac{1}{3})^n\}$?

Will it oscillate? That doesn't matter because it still converges to 0 in this case.

Absolute value theorem

If $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} |a_n| = 0$, then $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} a_n = 0$. This only works if the limit is 0.

Example: Determine whether the following sequence,

$$\left\{ (-1)^n \frac{\cos(n)}{n^2} \right\}$$

converges or diverges.

$$a_n = \left(-\frac{1}{2}\right)^n \cos(n)$$

$$|a_n| = \frac{|\cos(n)|}{2^n}$$

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{|\cos(n)|}{2^n}$$

We can't say much about this yet.

We can use the Squeeze theorem as the function method does not help here

can't say anything about this

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} -\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^n = 0$$

Is this because of the absolute thing?

$$\text{So } \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(-\frac{1}{2}\right)^n \cos(n) = 0$$

$$\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^n \leq a_n = \left(-\frac{1}{2}\right)^n \cos(n) \leq \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^n = c_n$$

Monotone Sequences: We say a sequence is *monotone* if it does not oscillate. More specifically, a sequence $\{a_n\}$ is:

- *Monotonically Increasing* if $a_n \leq a_{n+1}$ for all $n = 1, 2, \dots$
- *Monotonically Decreasing* if $a_n \geq a_{n+1}$ for all $n = 1, 2, \dots$

Bounded Sequences: We say a sequence $\{a_n\}$ is:

- *Bounded Above* if there is a number M such that $a_n \leq M$ for all $n = 1, 2, \dots$
- *Bounded Below* if there is a number m such that $a_n \geq m$ for all $n = 1, 2, \dots$

If both statements above are true, we say $\{a_n\}$ is a *bounded sequence*.

Example: Consider

$$\left\{ \frac{n}{n+1} \right\}$$

Does this sequence converge?

Try to prove it now

Theorem: Every bounded monotone sequence converges.